

Non-Bare Proper Names: Proper Names with Determiners and Modifiers in a Cross-Linguistic Perspective

Universität zu Köln, May 16-17, 2024.

Day 1.

Thursday, 16th of May, 2024	
Venue: Alter Senatsaal, Hauptgebäude, Universität zu Köln	
09:15 – 9:30	Opening Remarks
09:30 – 10:30	Invited Talk 1 Hans Kamp: Title TBA
10:30 – 10:45	Break
11:00 – 11:45 11:45 – 12:30	Session 1 Eduardo Garcia Ramirez and Andrés Saab: “Proper Names Without Semantics.” Julien Foglietti: “Referential hereditary last names as presupposition triggers.”
12:30 – 14:00	Lunch
14:00 – 14:45 14:45 – 15:30	Session 2 Ana Aguilar and Carolina Oggiani: “Determined proper names in Spanish.” Edgar Onea, Melanie Loitzl, and Anna Volodina: “On the use of the definite article with proper names in German”
15:30 – 16:00	Break
16:00 – 17:00	Invited Talk 2 Ora Matushansky: Title TBA
19:00	Dinner

Non-Bare Proper Names: Proper Names with Determiners and Modifiers in a Cross-Linguistic Perspective

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Day 2 .

Friday, 17th of May, 2024	
Venue: Alter Senatsaal, Hauptgebäude, Universität zu Köln	
09:30 –10:30	Invited Talk 3 Javier Caro Reina: Title TBA
10:30 –10:45	Break
10:45 –11:30	Session 4 Bert LeBruyn, Olga Borik, Ljudmila Geist, Jianan Liu, Hagay Schurr, and Daria Seres: "Proper names: a translation corpus view."
11:45 – 12:30	Elizabeth Riddle: "A Six-Language Quantitative and Qualitative Comparison of Non-Bare Proper Names."
12:30 –14:00	Lunch
14:00 –14:45	Session 5 Henry Davis: "Proper Nouns in St'át;imcets (Lillooet Salish)."
14:45 –15:30	Rafael Herrera and Aarón Sánchez: "Person marking on Tlacotenco nahuatl proper personal nouns"
15:30 –16:00	Break
16:00 –16:45	Session 6 Rafael Antonio Gutiérrez Martínez: "Derivational Morphology and Proper Names"
16:45 – 17:00	Concluding Remarks
17:15 –18:30	Linguistic Caffe
19:00	Dinner

Proper Names without Semantics

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1. The View

There are at least two substantial ideas guiding the discussion about the nature of ordinary proper names in natural language. First, there is the idea that proper names must have a semantics, either referentialist or predicativist.¹ It is generally assumed that these, or variations of them, are the only explanatory alternatives. Second, there is the idea that what Kripke (1980)² calls the “rigidity” of an ordinary proper name must be a semantic feature.³ These ideas include the vast majority of the literature on proper names: descriptivism, predicativism, referentialism and variabilism, all of which assume that proper names have a semantic value, namely, a referent, a definite description or a metalinguistic definite description or a mix of these.

A third kind of view has been offered. Initiated by Ziff (1960)⁴ and somewhat endorsed by Kripke (1980), it holds that ordinary proper names have no meaning. A recent development is Saab and Lo Guercio’s (2020) “no name” view, according to which ordinary proper names have “no detectable meanings” before syntax but are “the result of a particular syntactic configuration” [Saab and Lo Guercio, 2020:60]⁵. In this paper we want to explore a more acute version of this view. We follow Ziff (1960) in claiming that proper names have no semantics – not even syntactically driven – but serve as mere placeholders for a suitable contextual pragmatic assignment. The resulting view holds:

Syntax:

given a name, e.g. ‘Alfred’, there is a syntactic root $\sqrt{\text{ALFRED}}$ that, accompanied by an n -feature, forms the $[n+\sqrt{\text{ALFRED}}]$ complex that may combine with a phase head.

Proper names have a lexical Root with no encoded meaning (i.e., either referential or descriptive). A particular syntactic scheme is needed to determine if the name Root is a determiner phrase or a predicate, none of which has a semantic realization.

Pragmatics:

Bare uses of names in conversational contexts convey the following information either by assumption, presupposition or regularity: (i) there is one object per name; (ii) the referent of the use is the most salient object in the context; and (iii) the salient object is named by the name used.

¹ This includes Kripke’s (1980) distinction between meaning and reference, as either one, or both are meant to be semantic.

² Kripke, S. 1980. *Naming and Necessity*. Harvard University Press. Cambridge, MA: USA.

³ But see Geurts, B. 1997. “Good news about the description theory of names”. *Journal of Semantics*, 14, 319-348.

⁴ Ziff, P. 1960. *Semantic Analysis*. Ithaca: NY. Cornell University Press.

⁵ Saab, A. and Lo Guercio, N. 2020. “No name: The alloosemy view”. *Studia Linguística*. 74, 1, 60-97.

Identity condition (i) helps speakers acquire new names (see Hall, 2002⁶) by assuming a one-object-name correspondence and, thus, that different names correspond to different objects.⁷ Salience condition (ii) helps speakers fix a referent in context (see Lewis, 1979⁸). Being-called condition (iii) is partly a consequence of (i) and a useful tool for tracking object-name relations (see Predelli, 2013 and 2017⁹). The use of proper names contributes to the interpretation of the syntactic structures in which their name Root appears. Such contributions, as well as the inferences they allow (whether referential or predicative), have a pragmatic source. Pragmatic interpretation is, however, not unrestricted. Proper names may not be freely interpreted as either nouns or predicates. Their interpretative parameter is restricted by the syntactic scheme in which they appear.

2. Arguments for the View

Ziff's (1960) central argument for this type of view stands on the thesis that "it is not possible to state a simple strong generalization about proper names. One can only say what is so for the most part and that must be qualified." [1960:§106:93] For example, unlike common nouns, proper names do not seem to belong to a single natural language, 'football player' belongs to English and 'futbolista' to Spanish, yet 'Leo Messi' does not seem to belong to any single one. "Leo Messi is an extraordinary football player" is not a mixed sentence using English and Spanish. Also, referents do not seem to be of essence. Some proper names have an associated spatiotemporal referent (e.g., 'Messi', 'Einstein'), but others do not (e.g., 'Achilles', 'Pegasus')¹⁰; and for those that do, nothing hangs on the referent's existence (e.g., 'Albert Einstein' does not mean less now that the associate referent no longer exists). Like fictional descriptions, fictional proper names demand no spatiotemporal referent. Unlike the former, the latter must do their job without the help of any descriptive information semantically assigned to their parts.

Moreover, reference may be fixed in variegated ways. Some names get their associate referent directly (e.g., 'Careful don't step on Rudolf', as I point to my newly baptized pet turtle); others demand a host of information (e.g., 'Teophile Guatier was a French writer'). And, of course, there are the multiple syntactic positions they can hold. Proper names can be numberless DPs (e.g., 'Jon is a great person') but also predicates (e.g., 'There are three Jons in this room'). And last, but not least, proper names are typically rigid, but may also fail to be so (see Ziff, 1977; Lewis, 1986;)¹¹.

⁶ Hall, G., 2002. "Semantics and the acquisition of proper names." In *Language, Logic, and Concepts* edited by R. Jackendoff, P. Bloom and K. Wynn, 337–72. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.

⁷ Ziff, P. 1960:104 offers an argument to the claim that proper names are identity keepers. There is anthropological support for this claim from the social struggle of name-recovery, as witnessed by the ongoing search for persons (now adults) who were kidnapped as babies in Argentina in the 1970s and are still now in search of their real name.

⁸ Lewis, D., 1979. "Scorekeeping in a language game", *Journal of Philosophical Logic*, 8, 339–359.

⁹ Predelli, S. 2013. *Meaning without Truth*. Oxford: Oxford University Press; Predelli, S. 2017. *Proper Names. A Millian Account*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

¹⁰ Like Ziff (1960), we are assuming that there are no non-spatiotemporal objects, and that no such objects are intended to be the referent of fictional names. See Garcia-Ramirez, E. 2011. "A Cognitive Theory of Empty Names." *Review of Philosophy and Psychology*, 2, 785–807 (2011). Lewis (1978) offers spatiotemporal referential candidates for fictional names, but his view requires the postulation of a plurality of concrete, spatiotemporal, possible worlds and individuals. See Lewis, D. (1978). Truth in Fiction. *American Philosophical Quarterly*, 15(1), 37–46.

¹¹ Ziff (1977) offers the following example as evidence: "A somewhat paranoid instructor attempts to insult Dean Gaskin at a party by making sarcastic remarks about a recent decision of the Dean. However, the instructor mistook Professor Harmon for the Dean. Afterwards, one of the instructor's colleagues knowing what he had done went up to him and said 'You are a lucky fool; you insulted the wrong man. If Harmon had been Gaskin, and he might have been, you'd be in real trouble.'" [1977:325–326]. If 'Harmon' and 'Gaskin' are rigid, then the possibility brought up by the concerned colleague would not be a live one. See Ziff, P. 1977. "About proper names". *Mind*. 86, 343, 319–332. See also chapter 4 of Lewis, D. 1986. *On The Plurality of Worlds*. Blackwell: UK, for a discussion of rigidity vs quasi-rigidity.

They may have bare-singular uses that, nevertheless, denote different referents within a single scenario. Such is the case with ‘William Bruce Jenner’ in (1), evaluated within context (2).

- (1) William Bruce Jenner could have been a woman.
- (2) Consider a possible world where Bruce Jenner is a male olympic decathlete who spends his entire life convinced of being male. Caitlyn Jenner, on the other hand, is an olympic decathlete who, at age 66, decides to undergo a gender transition, thus becoming a woman. Bruce Jenner and Caitlyn Jenner are not identical.

William Bruce Jenner could have been Bruce Jenner in (2), making (1) false. But he could have also been Caitlyn Jenner, making (1) true. The inconstant denotation of ‘William Bruce Jenner’ cannot be accounted for if semantics requires an assignment of one and the same an entity as content. Beware, this is not a problem of counterpart assignment. Counterpart theory has no problems assigning a referent to (1) in the context of (2). The problem is that, under any view of counterparthood, there is more than one referent assigned in a single possible world (i.e., that of (2)). This goes against the generally accepted view that, when used referentially, names have a semantically determined value (i.e., a referent) and that *it* remains fixed across modal contexts.¹² What (1) and (2) show is that reference is not so (semantically) fixed, as it may be shifted given the appropriate context, such as (2).

Further evidence that proper names have no semantics comes from psycholinguistics and neurology. The acquisition of proper names has primacy over the rest of the lexicon, requiring no more than prelinguistic preparedness. They demand much less conceptual resources than any other category. Memory-wise they make high demands on the cognitive system; and they exhibit selective damage and preservation in anomia (see Garcia-Ramirez and Shatz, 2011, for a review)¹³. Proper names are costly because they establish a single link between name and associated referent or representation. They carry little to no information (see Semenza, 2009).^{14,15} As Garcia-Ramirez and Shatz, 2011 argue, the empirical evidence consistently shows that the distinctness of proper names from other lexical categories is owed to their lack of semantic information. It is precisely the lack of conceptual resources within reach of proper name processing that make the memory task so costly. As Bredart, Brennen, and Valentine (1996)¹⁶ show, proper names are costly because they have little to no associated information – i.e., lexicalized or not – that may offer alternative entry points. This informational isolation is confirmed by evidence of double dissociation of proper names in aphasia, as they may be either selectively impaired or preserved. Miceli, et.al. (2000) report on a patient with selective damage for proper names but not common nouns. Semenza, Sartori, and D’Andrea (2003) report on a patient unable to name familiar faces, who could describe familiar people, and who could identify familiar faces when given the name.¹⁷ Consistent with this

¹² Thanks to an anonymous referee for raising the issue about counterpart theory.

¹³ Garcia-Ramirez, E., and Shatz, M. 2011. “On problems with descriptivism: Psychological assumptions and empirical evidence.” *Mind & Language*, 26, 1, 53-77.

¹⁴ Semenza, C. 2009: “The neuropsychology of proper names”. *Mind & Language*, 24, 349–71. See also Semenza, C., Graná, A., Cocolo, R., Longobardi, G. and Di Benedetto, P. 2002: “Proper names and noun-to-determiner movement in aphasia: a case study”. *Brain and Cognition*, 48, 542–45.

¹⁵ See Gollan, T. and Bonanni, P. 2005. “Proper names get stuck on bilingual and monolingual speakers’ tip of the tongue equally often”. *Neuropsychology*, 19, 3, p: 278.

¹⁶ Bredart, S., Brennen, T., and Valentine, T. 1996. *The Cognitive Psychology of Proper Names. On the importance of being Ernest*. London: Routledge.

¹⁷ Miceli, G., Capasso, R., Daniele, A., Esposito, T., Magarelli, M. and Tomaiuolo, F. 2000. “Selective deficit for people names following left temporal damage: an impairment of domain specific conceptual knowledge.” *Cognitive Neuropsychology*, 17, 489–516; Semenza, C., Sartori, G. and D’Andrea, J. 2003. “He can tell which master craftsman blew a Venetian vase, but he cannot name the Pope: a patient with a selective difficulty in naming faces.” *Neuroscience*

(conceptually and informationally) frugal view of proper names, multiple studies of Canidae show that dogs have the cognitive resources to process and acquire proper names competently.¹⁸

3. Explanatory Virtues of the View

Giving no semantics has multiple explanatory advantages. First, it accounts for the syntactic plasticity of proper names, allowing for bare and non-bare uses. Proper names may be accompanied by any category – given a suitable syntactic environment – since they lack semantic restrictions. How exactly this interaction takes place depends on syntax and pragmatic context.

We follow Saab and Lo Guercio (2020) in claiming that every proper name has a root (e.g., $\sqrt{\text{ALFRED}}$), this root is accompanied by a human/animate feature at n (e.g., $n_{\text{human}} + \sqrt{\text{ALFRED}}$). The $[n + \text{Root}]$ complex is common to referential and predicative uses of names, as “the same phase head combines with the same indexed Root” [Saab and Lo Guercio, 2020:11] at the first phase. The difference between referential and predicative uses emerges relative to the functional head that the lower $[n + \text{Root}]$ complex combines with: a numberless DP in referential uses and a null noun in predicative ones. Each combination delivers a different model-theoretic object at nP level. When combined with a numberless DP the $[n + \text{Root}]$ complex demands an e -type object, while the null noun combination an $\langle e, t \rangle$ type one. Since there is no semantic level, both referential and predicative uses are underdetermined, i.e., their value varies from occurrence to occurrence relative to speaker meaning and conversational context. Thus, their value is assigned relative to contextual features such as identity, salience, familiarity and use-based regularities (see Ziff, 1960; Lewis, 1979; and Predelli, 2013 and 2017). This same mechanism may also account for non-bare uses of proper names by appealing to the expressivity of proper names. Saab (2021)¹⁹ offers a detailed account for the case of honorifics; and Oggiani and Aguilar Guevara (2023)²⁰ for proper names accompanied by personal articles.

Second, the $[n + \text{Root}]$ structure may account for further morphological evidence. In Spanish, for example, some proper names have related pairs Alejandro/Alejandra, Francisco/Francisca; and appear to have a “relative ordering of derivational morphology”²¹, “Paqu-it-o-s” “Paqu-it-a-s”. This is evidence that names have a syntactic structure, which is accounted for by name Root and the $[n + \text{Root}]$ complex when combined with more syntactic structure. This syntactic structure is visible to grammar. What is not visible and, strictly speaking is not opaque either, is the semantics. There is none.

Third, having no semantics may solve the problem of referential inconstancy, as per (1) and (2). Without a semantic assignment of an entity as denotation, the e -type value assigned to the numberless DP in referential uses is purely dependent upon contextual pragmatic assignment, thus making the interpretation sensitive to contextual variations (e.g., modal variations). As a consequence, proper name rigidity is no longer a semantic feature. Kripke (1980) does not say whether rigidity is semantic or pragmatic but insists that proper names are “*de jure* [rigid], where the reference of a designator is *stipulated* to be a single object, whether we are speaking of the actual world or a counterfactual situation.” [1980:21;fn21] Given a pragmatic understanding of this

Letters, 352, 73–75. See Semenza, C. 2009. “The neuropsychology of proper names”. *Mind & Language*, 24, 349–71 for a detailed review of studies on proper name impairment / preservation.

¹⁸ See Kaminski, J., Call, J., Fischer, J., 2004. “Word learning in the domestic dog: evidence for “fast mapping.”” *Science*, 304, 1682–1683; Pilley, J.W., and Reid, A.K. 2011. “Border collie comprehends object names as verbal referents”, *Behavioural Processes*, 86, 184–195.

¹⁹ Saab, A. 2021. “A short note on honorifics and personal articles in Spanish and Catalan. Consequences for the theory of proper names.” *Isogloss. Open Journal of Romance Linguistics*, 7, 6:1–14.

²⁰ Oggiani, C. and Aguilar-Guevara, A. 2023. “Affective proximity: Determined proper names in Rioplatense Spanish” Typescript. Udelar, UNAM.

²¹ Thanks to an anonymous referee for bringing up this issue.

“stipulation”, we can also explain why bare singular uses – or most of them – are rigid in this sense. A contextual account of referential uses of proper names can make room for a pragmatic, stipulative view of rigidity.

Fourth, since the contribution of a given *use* of a proper name is determined by the syntax and pragmatics *of the particular context* of use we can readily explain predicative inferences, such as why (3b) seems to follow from an *assertion* of (3a).²²

- (3) a. Mary is a Queen of Scots.
- b. A Queen of Scots is called Mary.
- c. Mary is the name of a Queen of Scots.

If an assertion of (3a) is accepted, the conversational background will include (3c) as a presupposition, as speakers using ‘Mary’ in (3a) typically presuppose that ‘Mary’ is a name and that it names an object (see Predelli, 2013 and 2017; see Saab and Lo Guercio, 2020). With (3c) in the common ground (see Predelli, 2013 and 2017), (3b) follows directly. This example illustrates the relevance of contextual pragmatic features, as the truth of (3b) does not simply follow from the truth of (3a). For consider a possible scenario where Mary is a Queen of Scots but nobody calls her Mary, she is named Elizabeth instead. In such a scenario, (3a) is true but does not entail (3b), and (4) turns out to be false (see Kripke, 1980:69, on the non-triviality of asserting (4)).

- (4) Mary is called Mary (by someone).

Fifth, and last, having no semantics straightforwardly accounts for the empirical evidence coming from psycholinguistics and neurology, demanding an understanding of proper names as a unique, primitive, and thus outstanding part of the lexicon with little to no information associated. Naturally, the view also explains why, unlike common nouns, proper names do not seem to belong to a single language, and why they may or may not have an associate spatiotemporal referent, as per Ziff (1960).

4. Closing Remarks

Kripke (1980) is commonly read as proposing a referentialist, rigid semantics for proper names. Yet Kripke (1980) frequently insists that proper names have no meaning, and that we should not look for a semantics of names in his work. He departs from Ziff (1960) since the latter denies “that names have meaning at all even *more strongly* than [Kripke] would” [1980:32] by claiming that names are not part of language.²³ We do not claim the latter. Defending no semantics for names is consistent with Kripke’s insights: (i) proper names have no meaning (connotation) but only denotation²⁴; (ii) “intuitively [...] proper names are rigid designators” [1980:49]; and (iii) rigidity may be determined by context “where the reference of a designator is *stipulated* to be a single object, whether we are speaking of the actual world or a counterfactual situation.” [1980:21;fn21].²⁵

²² Thanks to an Anonymous referee for raising this issue.

²³ Italics are ours. See Kripke, 1980:32; and fn9.

²⁴ “It is not part of the *meaning* of ‘Dartmouth’ that the town so named lies at the mouth of the Dart.” [1980:26]

²⁵ “There is no reason why we cannot *stipulate* that, in talking about what would have happened to Nixon in a certain counterfactual situation, we are talking about what would have happened to *him*. [1980:44]

Referential hereditary last names as presupposition triggers

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In philosophy and in linguistics, whether one follows a predicative or a referential approach, the semantics of last names and of first names are often conflated. Both types of names seem to contribute the same type of meaning: that of an individual, (1a-b). However, as first discussed by Boër (1975) and as illustrated in (2a-b), predicative uses of first names and last names yield different interpretations. Last names used predicatively refer to the property of belonging to a family with a given name; while the most salient interpretation of first names used predicatively is either a metalinguistic interpretation (e.g., g(1) is named “James”) or a metaphorical one (e.g., g(1) shares one or more salient characteristics associated with people named “James” or a salient James). It is interesting to note that the interpretation pattern of last names is replicated with a quasi-name like *dad*, (1c) and (2c). The quasi-name *dad* can be used as a name, (1c) (leaving aside indexical constraints) and its predicative use refers not to a metalinguistic or metaphorical property but to the property of dadhood, (2c).

- | | | | | | | |
|-----|----|-----------------------------|----|-----------------------------|----|---------------------------|
| (1) | a. | James is here. | b. | Smith is here. | c. | Dad is here. |
| (2) | a. | He ₁ is a James. | b. | He ₁ is a Smith. | c. | He ₁ is a dad. |

It should also be noted that the members of a family are not just the individuals bearing this family's name, as shown by the truth of (3). Predicative uses of last names concern family membership rather than the bearing of a name and should not be conceived as metaphorical uses of last names.

- (3) Waldo Cox (my gardener) is a Romanov. Boër (1975: 390)
(An exciting fact revealed by recent historical investigations.)

Further proof that family membership plays a role in the meaning of last names comes from the coordination of full names in English. The factorization of a last name such as the one in (4) implies that the referents denoted by the subject belong to the same family rather than just share the same last name.

- (4) Stella (Choy) and Lynn Choy cooked dinner for friends.

The contrast between the referential and predicative uses of names (cf. (1a-b) vs. (2a-b)) has been discussed by Fara (2015) and Jeshion (2015a, 2015b), with the conclusion that last names used referentially are homophones with, and not – syntactically or semantically – derived from, the same last names used predicatively. Jeshion (2015b) argues that the link between the two uses can be attributed to deferred reference. However, influenced by the resemblance between last names and quasi-names like *dad*, I propose an alternative – predicativist – analysis where referential last names are presupposition triggers and where the link between last names used referentially and last names used predicatively is compositional. Moreover, based on data from Korean, I propose to treat the meaning of family membership associated with predicative last names as itself derived compositionally. This follows Ballarin (2019) which states that the most basic meaning of a last name is that of a family entity and that predicative uses of last names in English could be argued to include a silent *member of* predicate in their LF. Korean seems to express this predicate overtly through a suffix meaning “descendant”, *-ssi* in (5). (Note the Eastern order of the full name.)

- (5) 안 소민 은 안 씨 예요.
Ahn Somin eun Ahn -ssi -yeyo.

LN FN TOP LN SUFF DECL

‘Ahn Somin is an Ahn.’ or ‘Ahn Somin is of the Ahn family.’

My analysis of referential last names is inspired by Muñoz (2019) and his treatment of quasi-names. In a nutshell, Muñoz’ proposal is that to be called “dad” presupposes being a dad. This means that referential uses of quasi-names are only felicitous if they entail the predicative use. I argue that last names conform to the same pattern: to be called “Smith” presupposes belonging to the Smith family. To implement this idea, I propose that referential last names are derived from their predicative counterparts using a new kind of type-shifter. This type-shifter, in (6c), turns the content of the predicative last name, in (6b), into a presupposition and leads to the metalinguistic predicate in (6d). The meaning in (6d) can then combine with a silent determiner (and with a rigidifying element, which I abstract away from here) to allow last names to refer to individuals, (6e).

- (6) **Family names characterize sets of families with a given names**
- a. $\llbracket \text{Smith} \rrbracket = \lambda x_e: x \text{ is a family. } x \text{ is named } /smi\theta/$
Family membership is compositional (“Smith” in “He is a Smith.”)
 - b. $\llbracket \text{belongs to the Smith} \rrbracket = \lambda x_e. x \text{ belongs to the unique salient family named } /smi\theta/$
Type-shifter to transform family membership predicates into name predicates
 - c. $\llbracket O \rrbracket = \lambda f_{\langle e, t \rangle}. \lambda x_e: f(x) = 1. x \text{ bears the last name associated with } f$
Lexical entry of a last name used as a name predicate
 - d. $\llbracket O \text{ belongs to the Smith} \rrbracket = \lambda x_e: \llbracket \text{Smith} \rrbracket(x) = 1. x \text{ bears the last name } /smi\theta/$
Last names are also names of individuals (“Smith” in “Smith is here.”)
 - e. $\llbracket \text{The } O \text{ belongs to the Smith} \rrbracket = \text{the unique individual who bears the last name } /smi\theta/;$
only defined if this individual belongs to the unique salient family named $/smi\theta/$

As I will show in the talk, the treatment of referential uses of last names as presupposition triggers is confirmed by the presupposition tests (Karttunen 1973), in (7) (leaving aside the existence presuppositions contributed by *the*):

- (7)
- | | | |
|---|--|--|
| <ul style="list-style-type: none"> a. the James Smith is not bald. b. the Mary believes that the James Smith is bald. (but the James is actually not part of the Smith family.) c. If every famous linguist is bald, then the James Smith is bald. d. If the David Smith is the James’ brother, then the latter is the James Smith. | $\Rightarrow$ The unique individual who bears the first name $/dʒeimz/$ and who bears the last name $/smi\theta/$ is part of the family named $/smi\theta/$.
$\nRightarrow$ The unique individual [...] is part of the family named $/smi\theta/$.
$\Rightarrow$ The unique individual [...] is part of the family named $/smi\theta/$.
$\nRightarrow$ The unique individual [...] is part of the family named $/smi\theta/$. | Negation
– hole

To believe
– plug

If...then
– hole
If...then
– plug |
|---|--|--|

Reference

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Determined Proper Names in Spanish

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Spanish is a language that has a determiner system with definite and indefinite articles, but it also allows for the presence of nominals without determiners. Common nouns in argument position are usually not allowed and therefore a determiner is necessary (1) (Laca 1999). As for proper nouns (PN), they tend to occur bare in argument position (2):

- | | |
|--|--|
| (1) El hombre / * Hombre fue a trabajar.
def. man man went to work
‘The man went to work.’ | (2) Carlos fue a trabajar.
Carlos went to work
‘Carlos went to work.’ |
|--|--|

However, in Rioplatense Spanish (RS) —a variety spoken in Montevideo, Buenos Aires, and its surroundings—, proper personal names preceded by a definite article (*DefArt+PropNames*) can occur in informal registers, as the following examples obtained from Twitter show:¹

- (3) a. ‘Es increíble lo que está gastando **la Carolina** en la Intendencia de Montevideo.
 is incredible the what is spending the Carolina in the Mayor of Montevideo
 ‘It is incredible how much **def.Carolina** is spending on the Mayor of Montevideo.’
- b. ‘After quería **el Juan**, y no puede caminar.
 after-party wanted the Juan and not can walk.
 ‘**def.Juan** wanted to have an afterparty but he can’t even walk.’

In this presentation, we study this phenomena from a semantic and syntactic point of view. In the first part, we propose that *DefArt+PropNames* convey an expressive meaning, namely interpersonal proximity between the speaker and the referent holding the proper name; so, for instance, (4) implies that the speaker feels a close bond towards Maria:

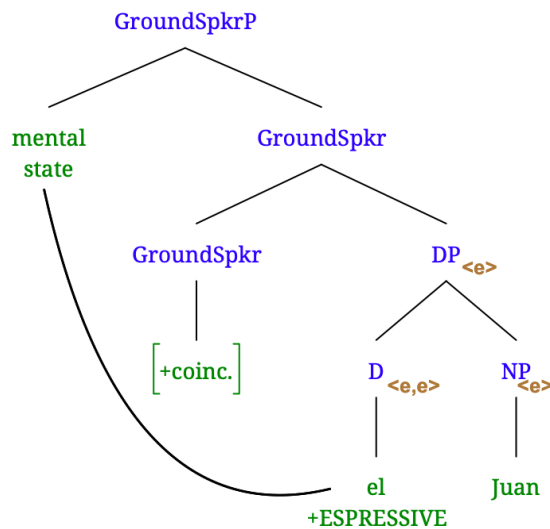
- (4) **La María** vino a mi fiesta
 def. Maria came to my party
 ‘**def.María** (with whom I feel close) came to my party.’

¹ Definite articles preceding proper names have been identified in languages of several families (Caro Reina & Helmbrecht, 2022). In Romance languages, it is a widespread phenomena (Brugger 1993; Longobardi 1994; 2008; Gomeshi & Massam, 2009; Camacho, 2019; Bernstein, Ordóñez & Roca, 2018; Saab, 2021; Espinal to appear). In this presentation we only focus on RS, although we are aware that (at least some of) the properties described here are also present in other languages.

We also show that interpersonal proximity, as an expressive content, passes the tests usually used in the literature to identify expressivity, such as *at-issueness*, *projection*, *descriptive ineffability*, *perspective dependence* and *non-displaceability* (Potts, 2005; Tonhauser, 2011; Gutzman, 2019).

In the second part of our presentation, we offer a formal analysis for DefArt+PropNames. Assuming a contemporary approach to expletives (Longobardi 1994, Saab 2021; Tsiakmakis & Espinal, 2022), we propose that the definite article is a semantic expletive marked with an expressive feature, which denotes an identity function and combines with an entity-referring proper name. Then, based on Wiltschko (2021), we propose that DefArt+PropNames are so-called *big nominals*, that is they contain interactional structure above the DP. Within this structure, interpersonal proximity arises by virtue of DefArt+PropNames interplaying with the interactional spine, in particular, by means of relating the speaker's mental state with the propositional content of the construction throughout the positive valuing of the [ucoin] heading the $Ground_{Spkr}P$. The following tree represents this idea:

(5)



Overall, our analysis not only accounts for the behavior of DefArt+PropNames, but it could also be extended to other cases of expressiveness-meaning determination combined with proper names.

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On the use of the definite article with proper names in German

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The possibility to use the definite article with proper names (PNs) denoting humans in German has been observed in the literature early on, however, research has mainly focused on oral German and regional and historical variation. The present study contributes to generating important empirical data regarding written German and suggests a novel theory involving covert adjectival features in the DP projected from the PNs.

Introduction PNs are a special form of nominal phrases that are considered by many to be rigid designators (cf. Kripke 1980). Being inertly definite, they do not require a definite article in many languages, as witnessed in the German example (1). However, some languages such as French, Dutch, and German require the use of a definite article before a PN if the PN occurs together with an adjective (cf. van Langendonck 2007) as in (2):

- | | |
|--|--|
| (1) Anna liest ein Buch.
Anna reads a book
'Anna is reading a book.' | (2) *(Die) kleine Anna liest ein Buch.
The small Anna reads a book
'Anna is reading a book.' |
|--|--|

It has been suggested that in cases like (2), the definite article merely indicates the left edge of a nominal phrase (cf. Gunkel 2017, van Langendonck 2007). However, there are also cases such as (3) in which the definite article is optionally present in German (see Nübling et al. 2015, Werth 2014, 2020, among others), raising the question what factors determine its distribution:

- (3) Anna sieht (den) Alfred.
Anna sees the.acc Alfred
'Anna can see Alfred.'

Sentences like (3) are associated with oral language, and their acceptability varies with regional preferences (cf. Werth 2014 and 2020, Nübling et al. 2015, Zifonun 2017, Bellmann 1990, Eichhoff 2000), emotive implications (cf. Bellmann 1990, Busley/Nübling 2021, Busley/Fitzinger 2021), and syntactical opacity (cf. Golato 2013, Betz 2015). Yet even in spoken varieties the semantic or pragmatic correlates of the use of the definite article appear to be widely unclear. However, for written language we are not aware of any corpus linguistic (or otherwise quantitative) analyses of this phenomenon in German. We address this research gap in this paper.

Method In our corpus study, we gathered data from the *Deutsches Referenzkorpus (DeReKo)* where we explicitly searched for bare PNs and for PNs accompanied by a definite article, both for male and female PNs. The selection of the PNs was based on a ranking of the most common PNs in Austria between 1984 and 2020 (cf. Statistik Austria 2020) as we expected these names to occur frequently in German texts in general; i.e. the data includes texts from all German varieties and the ranking by Statistik Austria 2020 ensured higher probability of name occurrence than random selection. Out of the total hits in *DeReKo*, we extracted a sample of 1200 hits, which we cleared errors (e.g. plural PNs, PNs that do not refer to people, but also cases in which there is a definite article with the name in query aimed for bare PNs). This left us with a total of 569 correct hits, which we annotated according to several criteria such as occurrence of a definite article, occurrence of a last name, gender, case, position in the sentence, occurrence of an attribute (before or after the PN) and optionality. Out of all the criteria we investigated, three are relevant for the current analysis: gender, case, optionality. Optionality represents the grammaticality of an example both with and without a definite article.

Results Based on the relevant data from the annotation, we conducted a statistical analysis in R using standard chi-square tests and generalised linear models. As witnessed by the association plots in Figure 1, one can see that in the general case, the presence of the definite article is way more likely in genitive, while in the optional cases, the picture radically changes and the definite article is only significantly overrepresented for accusative. Crucially all genitive data are non-optional because the genitive case needs to be marked either on the article or by a suffix on the proper name. When the suffix is present, thus, the article cannot appear and when the suffix is not present the article needs to appear.

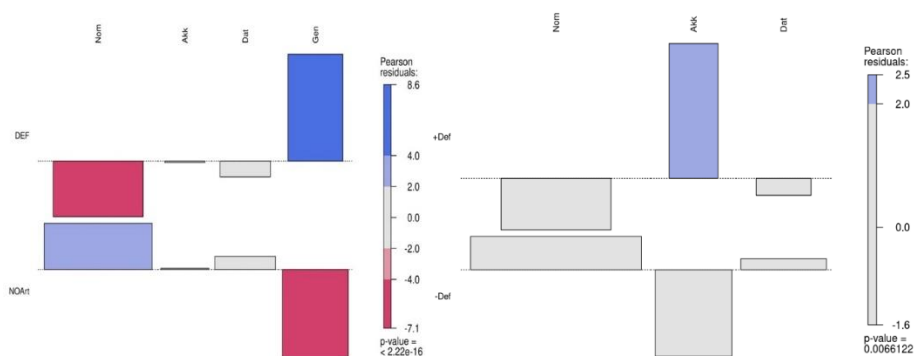


Figure 1 Association plot all data (l), optional article (r)

Gender is important because there is wide syncretism in the case marking pattern of German. Chiefly, feminine inflection does not distinguish nominative and accusative on the article, while masculine does. Hence, if the functional explanation of increased article use in accusative was due to argument structure disambiguation (as suggested by parts of the literature), we would expect an interaction between gender and case in the optional cases. We have fitted a generalized linear mixed model using the formula `ARTICLE ~ CASE * GENDER` and found no significant interaction but, as expected, a main effect of accusative. Hence, a case-disambiguating function is unlikely. Finally, we computed the probability of the optional use of the definite article for each case for the corpus using Bayesian simulation: Nom (0.0018), Acc (0.0048), Dat (0.0019), Gen (0). The methods converge on a higher likelihood of definite article + PN in accusative.

Discussion Our theoretical proposal is that when the definite article is present with a PN denoting a human there is always an adjectival feature in the projected DP, the article being necessary because the DP extends beyond the PN itself ([def [[adj] [PN]]]). Put differently, the article is never actually optional: with adjective in the structure it is obligatory, without it is ungrammatical. Crucially, this adjectival feature can be implicit, thus yielding the impression of optionality. We assume that the kind of adjectival features that can be left implicit are usually not lexical in nature but grammatical correlates of typical high-transitivity features such as high-affectedness, [topic], [familiar], [person], etc. which have been associated with differential object marking in the literature (Hopper and Thompson 1980, Iemmolo 2010, Dalrymple & Nikolaeva 2011, Hill & Mardale 2021). This correctly predicts that it is precisely accusative that we find most cases of ‘optional’ definite articles with PNs, albeit the article on the PN is not itself a case of DOM. Moreover, since such features are generally discursive features it is not surprising that we find them more likely to be present at LF and easier to reconstruct in spoken language that generally relies more on ellipsis. This correctly predicts a higher likelihood of articles in spoken language. Yet, while the exact nature of these features cannot be reliably reconstructed based only on the data we currently have, we propose an experimental method to further investigate their

discursive and semantic correlates. Finally, our suggestion broadly agrees with the sorts of semantic correlates discussed in the literature on oral language but takes a broader theoretical perspective on the matter.

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Proper names: a translation corpus view

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To contribute to the cross-linguistic investigation of the syntax-semantics interface of proper names (PNs) and of reference more generally, we are conducting a translation corpus study focusing on the PNs in the first three chapters of *Harry Potter and the Philosopher's Stone* (HPPS) and their translations to a variety of languages. We present §1) the different construction types (CTs) with proper names in the English original, §2) our selection of target languages, and §3) a preliminary analysis of the cross-linguistic variation we find in two of the CTs: *title + name* (e.g., *Professor McGonagall*) and *kinship term + name* (e.g., *Uncle Vernon*), both in their regular argument use. §1 and §2 establish the scope of our study. §3 argues for its theoretical relevance.

1. English: CTs with proper names | The first three chapters of HPPS contain 701 occurrences of PNs. For our English data exploration, we analyzed these and subdivided them into 60 descriptive CTs, covering form and use. (1) to (10) present a sample of regular argument CTs:

(1) 'a' + modifier + proper name	<i>A screaming Dudley</i>	(6) place name with definite article	<i>The Isle of Wight</i>
(2) 'that' + modifier + proper name	<i>That odd Harry Potter</i>	(7) Mrs. + name	<i>Mrs. Dursley</i>
(3) 'her' + affectionate name variation	<i>Her Ickle Dudleykins</i>	(8) Mrs. + adjective + noun	<i>Mrs. Next Door</i>
(4) 'the' + family name _{plural}	<i>The Dursleys</i>	(9) title + name	<i>Professor McGonagall</i>
(5) 'the' + kind name _{plural}	<i>The Muggles</i>	(10) kinship term + name	<i>Uncle Vernon</i>

Even though bare PNs in regular argument positions cover a good deal of our data (n=339), most PNs in our corpus turn out to be either modified (see (1) to (10)) or not to occur as regular arguments. Next to the vocative and naming uses, we also find PNs as modifiers (e.g., *Harry Potter Day*), incorporated objects (e.g., *Harry-hunting*), place names in addresses (e.g., *Cokeworth*) and preceded/followed by bound morphemes (e.g., *unDursleyish*). With this wide variety of CTs, our study goes well beyond the empirical scope of the current literature.

2. Languages in our study | For our cross-linguistic data exploration, we selected 100 occurrences of PNs in English, covering all CTs. Data collection is ongoing, but we have now covered 9 languages. Our selection includes 'article-less' languages (Mandarin, Russian), languages with a definite but without an indefinite article (Hebrew, Macedonian), and languages with definite and indefinite articles, some with a generalized use of definite articles with PNs (Catalan, Greek), others without (German, Norwegian, Italian). Our data replicate the basic co-occurrence generalizations of definite articles and PNs that we know from the literature:

- (11) Dudley > Dá lì (Mandarin), Dadli (Russian), Dadli (Hebrew), Dadli (Macedonian), Dudley (German), Dupleif (Norwegian), Dudley (Italian), el Dudley (Catalan), o Ntántli (Greek)

Another generalization that is replicated in our data is that the definite article that co-occurs with PNs in Catalan and Greek disappears in naming constructions (Matushansky 2009):

- (12) fills que es deien _Harry (lit. 'sons that were named Harry') (Catalan)
(13) o anipsiós tou legótan _Chári (lit. 'the nephew his was _called Harry') (Greek)

We argue that our selection of languages is useful to probe the nature of PNs across languages and that of reference in general. The appearance of definite articles has been a core argument in favor of quotation theories of PNs. By collecting rich data (§1) from languages with varied uses of definite articles (§2), we cannot but shed new light on the nature of PNs and that of reference. As a proof of concept, we analyze the translations of the CTs in (9) and (10).

3. The title and kinship constructions | We refer to (9) as the *title construction* (TC, De Belder 2009, 2022) and to (10) as the *kinship construction* (KC). (14) and (15) summarize our data (see §4 for Hebrew and Mandarin). The TC exists in two variants, both with the order title+PN, the

difference residing in the absence (a)/presence (b) of a definite article in front of the title noun (suffixed in Macedonian). The KC exists in the same two variants. We find inter-linguistic variation: Russian, German and Norwegian TCs and KCs appear without definite articles vs. Catalan and Greek TCs and KCs appear with definite articles. We also find intra-linguistic variation: Macedonian and Italian have TCs with definite articles but KCs without.

(14) *Title construction (TC)*

(a) Professor McGonagall Russian, German, Norwegian

(b) The professor McGonagall **Macedonian, Italian**, Catalan, Greek

(15) *Kinship construction (KC)*

(a) Uncle Vernon Russian, German, Norwegian, **Macedonian, Italian**

(b) The uncle Vernon Catalan, Greek

Our data raise two questions: (i) why is the order ‘common noun + PN’? (ii) how to analyze the inter-/intra-linguistic variation? Question (i) directly touches on the nature of PNs. If we take PNs – in line with quotation theories – to be predicative, and if we make the plausible assumption that common nouns are also predicative, there does not seem to be a principled reason to expect the specific order we find in the TC and KC. Indeed, if title/kinship terms and PNs are both predicates, the simplest way to compose their meanings would be to rely on predicate modification, an operation that does not require any specific order. To remedy, we generalize De Belder’s analysis of the TC and assume that the TC and KC start life as argument-predicate structures with the PN as the (subject) argument and the common noun as the predicate. Further following De Belder, we assume the common noun raises, leading to the observed surface orders. For De Belder, the common noun by default raises all the way to D, in line with Longobardi’s original ideas about N-to-D raising (Longobardi 1994). We propose (16) as the semantic correlate of raising in De Belder’s analysis. With *Professor* as input, the output combines with *McGonagall*, and refers to the unique individual who is a professor and identical to *McGonagall*.

(16) $P_{\langle e,t \rangle} \Rightarrow \lambda y_e \iota x_e (P(x) \& x=y)$

Even though De Belder’s analysis works well for the (a) variants in (14) and (15), it fails to account for inter- and intra-linguistic variation. This brings us to Question (ii). To account for inter-linguistic variation, several semantic and syntactic solutions are possible, but for the intra-linguistic variation we find between the TC and the KC in Macedonian and Italian, a more innovative take on the syntax-semantics interface of reference is needed. Inspired by recent work on speech acts at the propositional level (Wiltschko 2021; Krifka 2023), we hypothesize that speech act participants have a dedicated projection in an extended DP-layer to which we refer as SPP. SPP constitutes a relevant landing site for relational kinship nouns like *uncle* but not for sortal nouns like *Professor*. We propose that the contrast between the TC and KC in Macedonian and Italian resides in the relational/sortal distinction of their common nouns: relational kinship nouns raise to SPP, saturate their relational argument and undergo the operation in (16). Sortal nouns in these languages can raise (e.g., to a NUMBERP or a GENDERP) but stay below the extended DP-layer and can only undergo a variant of (16) that does not lead to an argumental type after combining with a PN as in (17), hence requiring the addition of a definite article.

(17) $P_{\langle e,t \rangle} \Rightarrow \lambda y_e \lambda x_e (P(x) \& x=y)$

Semantically speaking, support for a contrast between the TC and KC comes from the fact that the latter but not the former requires a link with a speech act participant (SPA), be it a direct SPA or the character whose perspective the narrator chooses to tell the story.

4. Conclusion and outlook | We have presented the empirical scope of our translation corpus study (§1,§2) and we have provided a proof of concept to support its theoretical relevance (§3).

We note that the analysis we presented of the TC and KC is preliminary. Empirically, we only covered a small sample of our data (Mandarin relies on the ‘PN+common noun’ order in the TC and KC, the Hebrew data suggest an additional sensitivity to verb placement, and the superficially similar construction in (7) leads to yet a different cross-linguistic interaction with definite articles). Methodologically, our approach requires replication and triangulation.

A Six-Language Quantitative and Qualitative Comparison of Non-Bare Proper Names
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This paper is a qualitative and quantitative analysis of forms/uses of non-bare Proper Names (PN) in Dutch (D), English (E), French (F), Greek (G), Hmong (H), and Polish (P), focusing on two workshop themes: (a) What categories can accompany proper names in natural language? (b) What is the meaning contribution of these categories? How does it combine with that of proper names? The quantitative portion compares the frequencies of the relevant categories, including definite (DA) and indefinite articles (IA); distal and proximate demonstratives (DEM); quantifiers, equivalents in each language of non-quantificational *one* and *some*, *said*; and *a certain*; DEM + N of a PN; DEM + N + PN; and DEM + PN + N, possessives, plus adjectival modifiers and restrictive relative clauses. These data comprise all instances of the phenomena from 3 Hmong novels (all which were available to me) and 10 novels from each of the other languages, reported as % normed for total number of words in the novels. Not all the languages include all these types, and those including the same ones can differ in their frequencies and functions.

The qualitative analysis is based on all relevant examples in **(a)** 10 full novels for each language original, representing subgenre, author gender and ethnic diversity, and geographical variety and **(b)** published professional translations of one or more originals from each language translated into the other languages when available. In addition, non-quantified data were gleaned from **(c)** electronic corpora; **(d)** TV speech for D, E, F, G, P; **(e)** hand recorded spontaneous speech for E, F, G; **(f)** newspapers, magazines, blogs, internet comments, etc. informally encountered, and **(g)** solicited judgments of native speakers.

The language selection reflects the need for discourse analysis in order to examine the phenomena in depth, which required choosing languages I could read, with consultation with native speakers. They represent 5 Indo-European languages and one non-IE, Hmong. Also, the languages differ in their determiner categories and determiner + PN behavior in context. A brief sample: **(a)** P and H do not have articles at all but are unrelated and typologically very different; **(b)** only H has an obligatory noun classifier system; **(c)** G is the only language which uses articles obligatorily with PN in reference to persons in many contexts; **(d)** F and D have mostly archaic, regional use of the definite article with PN, and with some marked variation, e.g. in F for a person noted as the epitome of a category; **(e)** E only allows *the* with PN when used with a plural PN (e.g. the Smiths), and with *the* pronounced with a tense high front vowel to mark a referent as the “genuine” well-known person of that name (similar to F), and in rare cases, in an affectionately playful way marking the referent as different from others, or else in a very negative tone (distancing). In very rare cases, English even uses the French feminine singular definite article *la* to indicate a woman distinguished negatively for her sexy and entitled behavior. However, if an adjectival modifier or restrictive relative clause occurs with the PN, then a DA or IA, is very frequent in D, F, E. In contrast, G requires the definite article with demonstratives (e.g. *afto to* N (this the N ‘this N)), and F does not generally distinguish proximate vs distal demonstratives without the marked addition of an additional morpheme. Of special interest is that these languages show a spread of conceptually related but varied expressions of attitude, information status, and focus in their non-bare PN constructions; e.g., E, F and D all have both IA + PN and “*a certain* PN” to introduce a new referent, but the latter has a stronger particularizing/focusing sense in E than in D and F. In these, the construction is frequently translated professionally into English with the IA. In P, the uses of *pewien* ‘certain’ and “*jakaś* ‘some’ (non-quantificational) also serve related but distinct functions. One example is:

1. ...jakaś pani Skapska...(P, novel)

some Mrs. Skapska

[There was] a Mrs. Skapska [there].’

In contrast, E *some* is very unlikely to occur as a determiner for an otherwise bare singular PN. If it did occur, it would sound extremely demeaning. Thus distinguishing the fine points of crosslinguistic difference in such closely related constructions requires detailed study of the semantics of the words in relation to their semantic fields, with consideration of their collocations, in each language on its own.

Also interesting is the use of a possessive with a PN. This is frequent in Greek in both direct address and reference to others to indicate closeness, or a warm, friendly attitude, e.g. as with *mas* ‘our’ in 1 from an email to me by a Greek native speaker (here transliterated):

- 2 i xristina mas diskolevete na kani to mathima tin paraskevi

the Kristina our has-difficulty to do the lesson the Friday.

‘It will be difficult for Kristina to come to the lesson on Friday.’

In American English, possessive + PN is infrequent, and used mainly for identificational purposes (e.g. “my Paul” to refer to one’s husband vs. another’s husband named Paul), and more rarely in direct address in intimate situations. (cf. Rybarczyk (2015) on Polish).

Another attitudinal example is the distancing effect of the distal demonstrative, a metaphorical extension widely discussed. It frequently conveys a negative sense in English, as in (3), as a metaphorical extension of its more literal use, but it can also be used in a positive sense of distancing if the referent is held out as a praiseworthy example apart from other people. This shows that the very concept of distance can have different realizations, some of which may differ across languages; e.g., in Hmong (4), the distal DEM with a PN is very negative and insulting. 5 and 6 show a related type, the use of a DEM with ADJ N *of* PN.

3. That Victor! If he doesn’t straighten up... (E, novel)

4. Rose ntawd...(Rose that ‘that Rose’) (H, elicited)

5. ce damné imbécile d’Enrico...(DEM damned imbecile of E) ‘that damn imbecile E’ (F, translated novel)

6. die trut van een Dorien Jager (D, novel) (that bitch of a Dorien Jager)

Seemingly paradoxically, the use of the proximate demonstrative with a PN also has a distancing tone in that it is a marked form which depersonalizes the referent, but on the information status level, it signals that a referent is relatively new to the discourse, as in 7:

7. I don’t know this Charlotte Hayes. (E, spontaneous speech; pointing to a brochure.)

.....The above is just a small sample of the data and concepts considered. This two-pronged analysis has consequences for research on the nature of PN ranging from that of Frege (1892) to Anderson (2007), Matushansky. (e.g. 2006, 2008, 2014, 2015), McKinsey 2010, Fara (2015), Camacho 2019, Lee 2020, and Agolli 2023, among others. The lexical semantics of the individual determiners and modifiers used with PN and their behavior in discourse in each language suggest that the PN category is best analyzed in terms of a prototype. I will also show that this treatment of non-bare PN has consequences for treatments of forms of NP reference in general. Thus a straightforward hierarchy of NP forms such as in Ariel (1998) misses important semantic and pragmatic conditions bearing on the choice of NP forms for referring in actual contexts. Finally, I argue that although some or all of the languages investigated here use non-bare PN in some language specific ways, they are linked in having conceptually similar purposes involving point of view (including attitude, information status, and focus). (See, e.g., Anderson 2009; Riddle 2010, 2014, 2024; Kleiber 1992, 2005, 2006; Gary-Prieur 1994, Schnedecker 2005, 2009, Rybarczyk 2015). The level of markedness, the specifics of the component lexical semantics, and the type of metaphorical extension in each language work together to produce interconnected particularities in non-bare PN cross-linguistically.

PROPER NOUNS IN ST'ÁT'IMCETS (LILLOOET SALISH)

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1. Introduction. This paper investigates the syntax and semantics of proper nouns (PNs) in St'át'imcets (a.k.a. Lillooet Salish: ISO 639-3 lil). It argues for a dual representation of PNs. On the one hand, bare PNs resemble common nouns (CNs) in being lexically predicative: they take the full range of CN determiners and may be pluralized, modified, and act as the restrictions of quantifiers. On the other hand, when prefixed with the “nominalizer” *s-*, which occurs on PNs in both predicate and argument positions, PNs behave semantically as directly referring expressions: they take a special proprial determiner and cannot be pluralized, modified, or act as the restriction of a quantifier. It is argued that PNs are lexically represented either as predicates of type $\langle e, t \rangle$, in which case they function like CNs, or as arguments of type e , in which case they must be shifted into a predicative type in order to enter the composition, while maintaining their referential character: this is the function of the “nominalizer” *s-*, which under this analysis might actually be better termed a “predicativizer”.

2. Non-nominalized PNs. Without the nominalizer *s-*, PNs behave just like CNs. As predicates, they occur in the canonical clause-initial predicate position (following auxiliaries, if present), and cannot take determiners; their interpretation is that of a set of individuals.

- (1) *John*=ha=t'u7 ta=kúkwpí7=a láku7 tsal'álh=a?
John=Q=EXCL DET=John=EXIS there.INV Shalalth=EXIS
'Is the chief over in Shalalth still a John?'¹

In argument positions, they take the full range of determiners (obligatory on CNs in argument position), can be modified, pluralized and quantified (2), and may occur as low-scope indefinites in the antecedent of conditionals and under negation (3).

- (2) wa7 láti7 gaw'-p=wít [tákem nelh=*Johns*=a] inátawas
IPFV there.VIS gather-INCH=3PL [all PL.ABSN.DET=*Johns*=EXIS] yesterday
'All the Johns gathered there yesterday.'
- (3) cw7áoy=t'u7 káti7 [ku=*Johnny*]
NEG=EXCL around.there.VIS [DET=*Johnny*]
'There was no Johnny around there.'

3. Nominalized PNs. When introduced by the nominalizer *s-*, PNs behave quite differently. In predicate position, they refer to individuals, not to a set: compare (4) to (1):

- (4) *s-John*=ha=t'u7 ta=kúkwpí7=a láku7 tsal'álh=a?
NMLZ-*John*=Q=EXCL DET=John=EXIS there.INV Shalalth=EXIS
'Is the chief over in Shalalth still John?' (i.e., the individual John)

In core argument (subject and object) positions, nominalized PNs are optionally introduced by a special proprial determiner *kw=*:

- (5) ts7as cwíl'-en-Ø-as (kw=)*s-Laura*

¹ 'John' is a common last name as well as a first name amongst the St'át'imc.

come seek-DIR-3OBJ-3ERG (PN.DET=)NMLZ-Laura
 ‘He came looking for Laura.’

Nominalized PNs may not be modified or quantified, are ungrammatical in vocative and citation contexts, and can only be pluralized with the associative plural marker *wi* (otherwise used with numerals to mean ‘plus’) :

- (6) gaw’-p=wít [wi=s-Teresa]
 gather-INCH=3PL [ASSOC=NMLZ-Teresa]
 ‘Teresa and them (her relatives) met.’

4. Accounting for the differences. Non-nominalized PNs act straightforwardly as nominal predicates of type $\langle e, t \rangle$ (or its intensional counterpart), comparable in every way to CNs; this supports a predicative treatment of PNs. Nominalized PNs, in contrast, show the diagnostic properties of direct reference both in predicate and in argument positions. Note that this argues against reducing the referential status of PNs to the effects of the proprial determiner, as in Muñoz (2019), since the proprial determiner is present only in core argument positions, and even then only optionally, whereas nominalization itself is in strict complementary distribution with CN determiners, and is obligatory.

The most obvious way to treat this behavior is to treat all PNs as underlyingly predicative, and give the nominalizer the job of picking out a unique individual. Determiners will then do their usual job of converting the resulting predicates into arguments, with the proprial determiner restricted to predicates which denote unique individuals. Employing a predicativist lexical entry for a proper name such as ‘John’ as in (7), we might then give the nominalizer a lexical entry such as that in (8).

- (7) $\llbracket \text{John} \rrbracket = \lambda x. x \text{ bears the name } /j\alpha n/$ (8) $\llbracket s- \rrbracket = \lambda P_{\langle e, t \rangle}. \lambda x_e : \exists! x [P(x) = 1] . P$
Only defined if P is a proper name

Within the grammar of St’át’imcets, however, nominalization also applies to a significant subset (about a third) of CNs. Clearly, when applied to CNs, the nominalizer cannot be picking out a unique individual, since CNs denote sets. For this reason, I follow an alternative line of analysis, motivated by the fact that St’át’imcets counts as a pure [+pred, -arg] system in the typology of Chierchia (1998): more specifically, *all nouns in St’át’imcets must enter the syntax as predicates*.

I propose that while CNs are lexically predicative (and thus the nominalizer is vacuous on them), PNs are lexically ambiguous between being predicative (as in (7)) and referential (as in (9)). In their referential guise, they must be converted to predicative status in order to enter the syntax, while retaining their referential character. I suggest that an operation essentially equivalent to Partee’s (1986) *Ident* is responsible for doing so, as in (10), yielding (11).

- (9) $\llbracket \text{John} \rrbracket = \text{John}$ (10) $\llbracket s- \rrbracket = \lambda x_e \lambda y_e. [x = y]$ (11) $\llbracket s- \rrbracket (\llbracket \text{John} \rrbracket) = \lambda y_e [\text{John} = y]$
Only defined if x is a proper name

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(Rigidity and) Person-marking in Tlacotenco Nahuatl Proper Names

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1.Intro

In Tlacotenco Nahuatl (or TN), a central dialect of the Nahuatl language (Uto-Aztecan), proper personal nouns may bear person inflection, a morphological trait that, as far as we know, has not been reported in crosslinguistic descriptions of proper personal nouns (see, for instance, Caro Reina & Helmbrecht, 2022).

For instance, in (1) the proper name *Rafael* does not show person morphology, while in (2) the first person singular prefix *ni-* attaches to the proper name Hilarion.

- (1) rafael o-ki-walikak tamaltin
Rafael PST-O.3-bring tamale.PL
'Rafael brought tamales.'
- (2) **ni**-ilarion o-**ni**-k-walikak in tamaltin
1SG-Hilarion PST-1SG-O.3-bring DET tamale.PL
'I Hilarion brought the tamales.'

In this talk, we explore the contrast between person-marked and non-person-marked proper names in argument position in TN.

We argue that non-person-marked proper names are ordinary definite descriptions, but person-marked ones are interpreted as directly referential terms.

Furthermore, if person-marked proper names were directly referential terms we could explain why these only allow for rigid readings.

Our analysis considers that in TN, both proper names and common nouns are predicates. To back our claims, we provide fieldwork data gathered by conducting translation and acceptability tasks.

Before proceeding, we should note that, for the purposes of this presentation, we will not be concerned directly with the nature of person agreement in the nominal domain. We are aware of Baker's (2008) claim about NPs only agreeing in person under a special configuration known as SCOPA. TN person-marked nouns may pose a challenge to Baker's theory. However, we currently do not have a full-fledged account of person marking in TN nouns. For this reason, we leave this topic for further research.

1.1 Structure of this talk

In section 2, we present some of the basic syntactic facts of the language, focusing on the nominal and pronominal domains. Section 3, then, consists of a minimal overview of some proposals for the semantics and syntax of proper names. In section 4 we discuss the main data, on one hand, showing that in TN proper names behave in the same way as common nouns with respect to person marking across several contexts; and on the other hand, that only person-

marked proper names seem to be interpreted as rigid expressions. Finally, we conclude in section 5 with a summary and a discussion of one of many open questions at this point.

2. Tlacotenco Nahuatl general data

TN is a central dialect of the Nahuatl language spoken in Central Mexico.

Nahuan languages belong to the Uto-Aztecan family.

TN is a pro-drop nominative-accusative language and its unmarked word order is SVO.

2.1 Verbal person marking

In TN verbs display the person and number features of both subject and object.

For instance, in (3) the prefix *ti-* marks the subject of the clause *teʔwan* 'we', while the prefix *k-* marks the object in Pedro 'Peter'.

Note also that subject prefixes appear before object prefixes.

- (3) teʔwan o-**ti**-k-iʔtaʔ-ke in Pedro
1PL PST-S.1PL-O.3-ver-PST.PL DET Pedro
'We saw Peter'

In Table 1 we register the subject and object prefixes that attach to the verb.

Table 1: Verbal person prefixes		
Features	Subject	Object
1SG	n(i)-	neŋ-
2SG	t(i)-	mits-
1PL	t(i)-	tiŋ-
2PL	nem-	nenmits-
3	∅-	k(i)-

2.2 Nominal person marking

In addition to verbs, nominals may also display person marking.

To show this, note that in (4) the noun *teopijke* 'priest' bears a second person prefix *ti-*, while in (5) the noun *temachtiʔke* 'teachers' displays the first person prefix *ti-*.

Nominal person markers are the same as the verbal subject prefixes in Table 1.

- (4) teʔwaŋ o-ti-jeja (**ti**)-teopijke
2SG PST-S.2SG-be.IMPF 2SG-priest
'You were a priest.'

- (5) ti-temachtiʔ-ke o-ti-k-walikaʔ-ke tamaltin
 1PL-teacher-PL PST-S.1PL-O.3-bring-PST.PL tamale.PL
 ‘We the teachers brought tamales’

2.3 Independent pronouns

Regarding independent pronouns, in TN there are at least three series, as shown in Table 2.

Table 2: TN independent pronouns			
1SG	ne	newa	neʔwatɫ
2SG	te	tewa	teʔwatɫ
3SG	je	jewa	jeʔwatɫ
1PL	tewa	teʔwan	
2PL	amewa	ameʔwan	
3PL	jeʔwan	jewantin	jeʔwuntin

2.3 Determiners

Finally, in (6) we register the particle *in*, which has been analyzed as a definite determiner in other central dialects of Nahuatl.

- (6) kochia in pipiltun
 sleep.PST.IMPERF DET boy.DIM
 ‘The boy was sleeping’

3. Semantics and syntax of proper names.

There are two main approaches to the semantics of proper names: the referentialist and the predicativist.

The referentialist view considers names rigid designators (Kripke, 1972): names are units referring to the same object in all possible worlds.

Predicativism, on the other hand, considers that names designate properties of individuals (Geurts, 1997; Matushansky, 2008, 2015; Fara, 2015).

Under this approach, referential proper names are descriptions: Bare names would be covert definite descriptions for some languages (7a) and overt ones for others (8).

- (7) a. John drank a lot of beer last night.
 b. The Donald will be impeached next week.
- (8) I Katina ine edho
 the Katina is here
 ‘Katina is here’ (Sophia, A., & Marmaridou, S., 1989)

Support for a predicativist approach comes from the almost identical distribution of proper names and regular nouns in contexts like the following:

- (9) a. A Mike came asking for you.
 b. Every Mike is ugly.
 c. Mikes are intransigent.
 d. The elegant Mike gave a speech.
 e. Seven Mikes were playing outside.
 (Jambrović, 2021)
- (10) a. A man came asking for you.
 b. Every man is ugly.
 c. Men are intransigent.
 d. The elegant man gave a speech.
 e. Seven men were playing outside.

The semantics of proper names under this view usually denotes an individual that bears the proper name, often referring to the phonological chain through different mechanisms.

The ‘rigid’ interpretation of names in (7–8) stems from this definition picking up a unique contextually salient individual bearing the name in question.

- (11) [[Aarón]]^w: $\lambda x_e. x$ bears /ar’on/ in w

Examples (7–8) could lead us to think that the syntactic source of rigidity is then a (null) article (12). However, the contrast between (29) and (30) below will be one argument to claim that there is more involved in a proper name than just D.

- (12) [S [DP Ø [NP John]] [VP slept]]

Other proposals address the issue differently. While still considering names as predicates, they argue that what makes a noun proper is a feature [name] of a nominalizing head (Ghomeshi & Massam, 2009; Jambrović, 2021) (13).

- (13)
- a. Name predicate
- ```

 nP
 / \
 n n
 / \
 n[NAME] √JEWEL
 /dʒuəl/

```
- b. Noun predicate
- ```

  nP
  /  \
  n   √JEWEL
      jewel
  
```

This, among other things, accounts for how proper names are still interpreted as names in non-argument positions, such as naming constructions.

However, (13a) only explains how a root gets to be treated as a name, but cannot account for the observation in TN that proper names distribute with common nouns and can receive ‘count’ readings in the same contexts.

4. Main data

In this section, we present two pieces of evidence that suggest that:

- 1) (non-person-marked) proper names are predicates and therefore they have descriptive content, and
- 2) Person-marked nouns are NPs that are referentially rigid.

First, we show that in TN proper names behave in the same way as common nouns concerning person marking across several contexts.

This points to a semantic uniform treatment of both types of nouns.

In other words, if TN proper names behave in the same way as common nouns, it must be because proper names are predicates in TN, just as is commonly assumed for common nouns.

Second, we show that the reference of person-marked proper names cannot scope under operators that induce referential variability, while non-person-marked proper names can.

Therefore, person-marked proper names seem to be interpreted as rigid expressions.

On the other hand, non-person-marked proper names allow for both a rigid and a non-rigid interpretation.

To account for these facts, for now, we are assuming that the rigidity of person-marked proper names stems from the indexical content of person features.

In contrast, non-person-marked proper names behave just as normal descriptions do, that is, just as definite NP.

4.1 Proper names as predicates

To show that in TN person marking behaves in the same way both on common nouns and on proper names, consider first the examples (14). Note that, in predicate position, a proper name such as *Rafael* (14) and a common noun such as *teopij/ke* ‘priest’ (15) may be marked for person.

- (14) ne (ni)-rafael
1SG 1SG-Rafael
‘I am (named) Rafael.’

- (15) tewatl o-ti-jeja (ti)-teopij/ke
2SG PST-S.2SG-be.IMPF 2SG-priest
‘You were a priest.’

In TN naming constructions person marking on proper names is barred, as shown in (16), in which the presence of the second-person prefix *ti-* is disallowed.

- (16) notata?wan o-mits-tokajoti?-ke (*ti-)xose
our.parents PST-O.2SG-name-S.PL S.2SG-Joseph
‘Our parents named you Joseph.’

Naming verbs are usually given the same analysis as change of state verbs. Briefly, both take small clause complements.

In the naming construction, the named entity acts as the subject of the small clause predication, and the proper name as the predicate, whereas in the change-of-state construction, the entity that undergoes the change is the subject of the small clause, and the state attained by this entity corresponds to the predicate (Matushansky, 2008).

In TN the proper name of a naming construction behaves in the same way that the predicate of a change-of-state construction.

Crucially, both disallow the presence of person marking, as shown in (16–17). In (17) *tji/ti* ‘dog’, the noun denoting the state attained by the subject of the small clause, cannot bear the first-person prefix *ni-*.

- (17) in tetlatjiwe o-nitj-kwep (*ni-)tji/ti
DET sorcerer PST-O.1SG-turn 1SG-dog
‘The sorcerer turned me into a dog.’

Besides this, proper names in naming constructions and the predicate of a change-of-state small clause share other properties.

For instance, both types of nouns may be incorporated into the verb, as in (18–19).

In (18) the common noun *tji/ti* ‘dog’ incorporates into the verb *k^wep* ‘to turn into’.

Likewise, in (19) the proper name *Rafael* incorporates into the verb *tukajoti?* ‘to name’.

- (18) in tetlatjiwe o-nitj-tji/ti-k^wep
DET sorcerer PST-O.1SG-dog-turn
‘The sorcerer turned me into a dog (lit. dog-turned me).’

- (19) nota?tsitsiwan o-nitj-rafael-tukajoti?-ke
my.dear.parents PST-O.1SG-Rafael-name-S.PL
‘My dear parents named me Rafael (lit. Rafael-named me).’

In addition, proper names and common nouns may agree in number with their subject in naming or change-of-state constructions.

In (20–21), the proper name Rafael and the common noun $\widehat{t\acute{f}i\acute{t}i}$ ‘dog’ agree in plural number with the subject *tonawan* ‘both of us’.

- (20) **rafael-tin** to-tukajotia tonawan
Rafael-PL REFL.1PL-name both.of.us
‘Both of us are named Rafael’

- (21) tonawan to-kwepa **$\widehat{t\acute{f}i\acute{t}i}$ -me**
both.of.us REFL.1PL-turn dog-PL
‘Both of us turn into a dog (lit. into dogs).’

In argument position too proper names and common nouns display the same behavior. In (22–23), for instance, the proper name *Hilarion* and the common noun $\widehat{tlakat\acute{l}}$ ‘man’ allow the overt expression of person whether they appear alongside a personal pronoun or not (*ne?wat\acute{l}* in 22–23).

- (22) (*ne?wat\acute{l}*) **(ni)-ilarion** o-ni-k-walikak in tamaltin
1SG 1SG-Hilarion PST-1SG-O.3-bring DET tamale.PL
‘I Hilarion brought the tamales.’

- (23) (*ne?wat\acute{l}*) **(ni)- $\widehat{tlaka-t\acute{l}}$** ni-tekiti ipan kwent\acute{la}
1SG 1SG-man-GN S.1SG-work on.it furrows.LOC
‘I man work in the fields.’

When argumental, proper names and common nouns may be preceded by the definite article, as shown in (24–25) for the proper name *Joseph* and the common noun $\widehat{tlakat\acute{l}}$ ‘man’.

- (24) **(in) xose** o-ni $\widehat{t\acute{f}}$ -tamalmakak
DET Joseph PST-O.1SG-give.tamale
‘Joseph gave me a tamale.’

- (25) **(in) $\widehat{tlaka-t\acute{l}}$** tekiti ipan kwent\acute{la}
DET 1SG-man-GN work on.it furrows.LOC
‘The man works in the fields.’

However, when preceded by the definite determiner *in*, neither a proper name (26) nor a common noun (27), can inflect for person.

- (26) ***in ni-rafael** o-ni-k-mo- $\widehat{tlakwili}$ -li inin
DET 1SG-Rafael PST-S.1SG-O.3-REFL.2/3-give.away-APL this
 $\widehat{t\acute{f}i\acute{t}i}$ iki?tun tositsin
little.basket our.dear.grandmother
‘I Rafael gave away this little basket to our dear grandmother.’

- (27) ***in ni- $\widehat{tlaka-t\acute{l}}$** ni-tekiti ipan kwent\acute{la}
DET 1SG-man-GN S.1SG-work on.it furrows.LOC
‘I man work in the fields.’

In fact, the definite determiner *in* cannot appear before a personal pronoun (28).

- (28) ***in ne?wat\acute{l}** o-ni-k-walikak in tamaltin
DET 1SG PST-S.1PL-bring DET tamale.PL

Since the behavior of person morphology on proper names parallels that of common nouns, we suggest that both types of expressions should be treated as the same. In particular, we propose that in TN proper names are common nouns. It follows that proper names are predicates which, in turn, supports a predicativist approach to the semantics of TN proper names (Frege, 1960; Russell, 1956).

Thus, in TN a proper name such as *Joseph* describes every individual that bears such a name (Matushansky, 2008).

4.2 Rigidity

Quantifiers bind definite descriptions, but generally not bare proper names, as in (29a–b). Covariation becomes more accessible if the name appears with a definite article (29c).

- (29) a. In every party, Brad plays the guitar and annoys everybody.
b. In every party, the musician plays the guitar and annoys everybody.
c. In every party, the Brad plays the guitar and annoys everybody.

However, in Greek, the obligatory presence of the definite article in (30a) still doesn’t allow the name to covary: (30a) is understood as the same individual winning all the competitions, whereas in (30b), the musician can be either the same individual or a different one in every competition.

- (30) a. Se káthe diagonismó, i Eléni kerdízei tin ypotrofia.
in every competition the.F Eleni wins the.F scholarship
‘In every competition, Eleni wins the scholarship.’
b. Se káthe diagonismó, i musikós kerdízei tin ypotrofia.
in every competition the.F musician wins the.F scholarship
‘In every competition, the musician wins the scholarship.’ (Jambrović, 2022)

Crucially, now we will show that TN doesn’t behave neither like English nor Greek regarding scope/covariation.

In TN both bare and definite proper names may scope under a quantifier (31). As a result, the referent of a proper name may covary with the quantifier.

In (31), note that the proper name *Joseph* scope above the quantifier *se?se* ‘each’, which explains why in this reading there is only one *Joseph*.

- (31) Context: There is only one Joseph that hid a pot of coins in several places.
 ipan **seʔse** tlapankal-li (in) **xose** o-ki-tlatik melio xoktli
 on.it each cave-GN DET Joseph PST-O.3-hide coin pot.GN
 ‘In each cave Joseph hid a pot of coins.’

However, in (32) the proper name John scopes under *seʔse*, which accounts for the reading in which there is one Joseph for each one of the houses.

- (32) Context: There are two different Johns, each of whom live in a different house.
 ipan **seʔse** kalli tfanti (in) **xuan**
 on.it each house.GN live DET John
Afterthought: (in) xuan enrike iwan (in) xuan waʔwakis
 DET John Henry and DET John dry.out.FUT
 ‘In each house lives a John. John Henry and John the skinny.’

The same applies to common nouns such as *teopifke* ‘priest’ in (33).

In (33), *teopifke* has narrow scope with respect to *seʔse*. This explains why the reference of *teopifke* covary.

- (33) Context: There are several priests, one per town.
 ipan **seʔse** altepetl (in) **teopifke** k-in-kwaatekia
 on.it each town.GN DET priest O.3-O.pl-baptize
 kukone
 child.PL
 ‘In each town the priest baptizes the children.’

In contrast, in (34) *teopifke* has wide scope with respect to *seʔse*. This explains why *teopifke* is interpreted rigidly.

- (34) Context: There is only one priest, who goes from town to town.
 ipan **seʔse** altepetl (in) **teopifke** o-k-inkwaatekia-ja
 on.it each town.GN DET priest PST-O.3-O.pl-baptize-IMPERF
 kukone
 child.PL
 ‘In each town the priest baptized the children.’

Note also that in (31-34) both bare and definite nouns, either proper or not, allow for **wide and narrow scope** readings. In other words, the reference of non-person-marked nouns may be rigid or not, whether they are definite or bare.

On the contrary, names with overt expression of person do not allow bound readings (35–37). For instance, examples (35–37) are acceptable only under a reading in which the same person, the same Joseph or the same man live in each of the houses, respectively.

In other words, sentences (35–37) are not acceptable in contexts where for each house there is a different person, a different Joseph, or a different man.

- (35) ipan **seʔse** kalli tfanti **jewatl**
 on.it each house.GN live he
 ‘He lives in each house.’
- (36) ipan **seʔse** kalli tfanti **jewatl xose**
 on.it each house.GN live he Joseph
 ‘This Joseph lives in each house.’
- (37) ipan **seʔse** kalli tfanti **jewatl tlakatl**
 on.it each house.GN live he man.GN
 ‘This man lives in each house.’

To account for the data in (31–37), for now we suggest that the rigidity of person-marked proper names results from the indexicality of person. Indexicals are usually assumed to refer directly, that is, expressions whose reference is fixed for all possible circumstances (Kaplan, 1989).

5 Conclusions

Summing up, we have presented data from the behavior of TN proper and common nouns and shown that they distribute alike syntactically and may receive both rigid and non rigid interpretations in crucial contexts, such as under the scope of a quantifier. This, is accountable for with a predicativist approach to proper names, under which they designate properties of individuals and are definite descriptions when appearing bare or with an overt article. However, When cooccurring with an overt mark of person, proper names receive and exclusively rigid reading.

Challenges:

Where is rigidity coming from in TN?

- Either bare or with a definite article, non-person-marked proper names allow both a rigid and a ‘count’ reading.
- Person-marked names are only interpreted rigidly.

One hypothesis we’re considering is that it is the indexical nature of pronouns (Kaplan 1989) that is responsible for the “rigidity” that person-marked proper names display, not the names themselves...

This, of course, raises the question about why a name and an article are not enough to do the trick in TN, a behavior that’s not considered by the literature.

Furthermore, if person-marked proper names were proven to actually not be DPs (for example, if they were covert copulas), TN proper names would not have exclusively ‘rigid’ readings in any context, unlike what has been attested crosslinguistically.

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Abbreviations

ANT = antecessive, APL = applicative, ASERT = assertion, DET = determiner, DIR = directional, DISTR = distribution, F = feminine, FUT = future, GN = general number, IMPERF = imperfect, INT = intensifier, O = object, PL = plural, POSR = possessor, PST = past, REFL = reflexive, S = subject, SG = singular, 1 = first person, 2 = second person, 3 = third person

Derivational Morphology and Proper Names

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Proper names are often combined with derivational affixes to create new words whose meanings are related in some way to the proper name's referent. However, the problem with this kind of derived word is that it is not easy to predict the (exact) meaning (or meanings) it will take. Consider, for instance, the Spanish word *rafaelista* (*Raphael-ist* from Raphael Sanzio). What is the meaning of this form? The morphology provides some hints about its possible meanings. It suggests that the word, in addition to a use as a relational adjective (*obra rafaquista*, 'work by Raphael'), can have several interpretations as a noun: It can refer to (i) a specialist in the work of Raphael, (ii) an admirer of Raphael, (iii) a member of an organization associated with Raphael or (iv) a follower of the ideas of Raphael (RAE-ASALE, 2009, 6.9a, f, k; 7.7h). But which of these interpretations is adequate is not clear *a priori*, nor is it clear which one is unlikely or even inadmissible. A (slightly simplified) adaptation of the analysis of relational adjectives in Arsenijević, et al. (2014) that treats *rafaquista* by saying that it has a logical translation like $\lambda x[Rel(x, \mathbf{Raphael})]$, where x is human and *Rel* is a contextually-specified relation, fails to give us the set of possible meanings that the morphology suggests for it provides a too weak interpretation (for example, being Raphael's neighbor could in principle be a possible value for *Rel* but does not seem like a valid value). For obvious reasons, this analysis also fails to tell us which interpretations among those that the morphology licenses are probable and which ones are improbable (in the Corpus del Español: Web/Dialects (Davies, 2016) *rafaquista* is never used with meanings (iii) and (iv), which might suggest that these meanings are unlikely for that word¹). A semantic theory of word meaning should aspire to say something about this².

In this work, I address this problem; to do so, I follow some ideas suggested by McNally et al. (2023). Building on the proposal of Erk & Herbelot (2024), these authors propose that developing a theory that predicts word meaning in context requires considering the probabilistic interaction of two kinds of knowledge: linguistic knowledge (from morphology) and world knowledge (from the word stem). How do these ingredients help to face the problem? *World knowledge* here means *scenario knowledge*. Scenarios are chunks of information and knowledge about situations and everyday events in the world (Sanford & Garrod, 1998). Specifically, they are groupings of concepts corresponding to entities and happenings that often appear together in everyday situations (Fillmore, 2006) and belong together (Erk & Heberlot, 2021). For example, for a situation like the sale and purchase of bakery products, the corresponding scenario consists of a system that includes concepts for the production activity (BAKING), what is made (BREAD), who does it (BAKER), and where it happens (BAKERY) (example taken from McNally et al. (2023)). Information of this kind helps to narrow down the interpretations of words in the following way. Suppose that a person who does not know the meaning of the Spanish word *panadero* ('baker') listens to that word in a given situation. Two

¹ It is important to emphasize that the claims made here and in what follows are restricted to the data found in the Corpus del Español: Web/Dialects. Uses of the word *rafaquista* with meanings (iii) and (vi) could, for example, be found in other sources. Although this is relevant in the long run, for the time being, what is of most interest is to examine the plausibility of the theoretical ideas considered here, for which the data chosen and analyzed are sufficient. Empirical improvements (like considering as well other corpora) can be implemented later once the theoretical ideas prove to be successful for a specific amount and type of data.

² It is worth noting that this problem is more acute for words derived from proper names than for words derived from common nouns. One reason for this is that in the former case, there is more indeterminacy about the semantic content of the word with which the derived word starts than in the latter.

cues are given to her in this context. First, the presence of the stem *pan* gives her access to the baked goods making-and-selling scenario that includes the concepts of BAKING, BREAD, BAKER and BAKERY. Second, the presence of the suffix *-ero* allows her to infer that the word names an entity of a specific type (in this case, an individual that sells or makes something). These two pieces of knowledge allow her to interpret the word's meaning probabilistically and predict that *panadero* is related to the person who sells or makes bread and denotes the baker.

To use these ideas to treat the semantics of words derived from proper names, we first need to determine what kinds of scenarios we can associate with proper names. The problem here is that even if we believe that knowledge of a proper name involves knowledge about some properties of the proper name's referent (if we, for example, adopt the notion of entity representations (Kamp, 2015) to theorize about proper names and their derived forms), it is clear that these properties can be of any kind and constitute whatever kind of information we have about the referent. Thus, we do not have a set of concepts with the feature of being highly salient in experience that can be *a priori* selected to be the concepts of scenarios associated with proper names. To address this issue, I analyzed 277 Spanish derived words of 40 names from 6 different classes (anthroponyms; toponyms; and names of organizations, human creations, brands, and temporal periods) collected from El Corpus del Español: Web/Dialects (Davies, 2016) to see if some generalizations could be found. From this analysis, I observed, first, that 9 different sorts of entities are systematically introduced through derivations from proper names (intellectual movements, the referent itself, qualities, actions, individuals, appreciations, periods of time, historical events, and units of language) and, second, that those entities appear to form clusters in some ways depending on the general class of the referent. For example, in my dataset, names of artists (e.g., *Dante*) and human products (e.g., *Gioconda*), when combined with derivational morphemes of different sorts (*-esco* and *-ina*), tend to create words that introduce qualities (*dantesco* and *giocondina*) and not words that introduce other types of entities. Likewise, names of artists rarely take affixes (like *-ismo*) that form words referring to intellectual movements (*rafaelismo*, for instance, is not found).

We then need to adapt the probabilistic semantic framework for polysemy resolution proposed by Erk & Heberlot (2024) to word meaning.³ Informally stated, the idea is the following. I assume (1) that entities of the sort identified in my corpus study are part of the scenarios for proper names, (2) that the knowledge of the morphology provides the set of possible semantic sorts of each derived word and (3) that the clusterings of interpretations mentioned in the last paragraph are what set the probability of the entities of the scenario for each derived word, which in turn determines the interpretation of that word. Thus, all derived words from proper names are potentially associated with scenarios that include the same sorts of entities, but depending on the class of the referent of the name some entities will receive more or less probability. To take an example, consider again the word *rafaelista*. The 9 sorts of entities mentioned above are potentially part of the scenario associated with this word. However, given that *Rafael* refers to an artist and names of artists tend to introduce qualities and avoid introducing intellectual movements, qualities receive a higher probability, and intellectual movement receive a lower probability. This, in turn, predicts that *rafaelista* will more likely refer to a property related to Raphael and not to a follower of Raphael's ideas.

³ In this framework, probabilities are understood in the Bayesian sense as degrees of subjective belief or reasonable expectations.

Overall, the present work shows that integrating scenario knowledge and morphology in distinct ways provides promising insights to face the problem of the semantics of derivation from proper names that can be operationalized.

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